Pixel animation from first principles

Build an 8-bit animation of Badshahi Masjid, Lahore, from single pixels to physics, in Python and in C

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1 Your first picture in twenty lines

Before any theory, make something. This chapter draws Minar-e-Pakistan at sunset with a kite beside it, as two frames that swing back and forth, in 23 lines of Python. Each step below says what the programmer is thinking, then shows the code that follows from the thought. The only library is Pillow, which Colab and Anaconda already include. The whole script, tiny_minar.py, is these steps joined together; it saves the animation to `../out/tiny_minar.gif`, so either make that folder or change the last line.

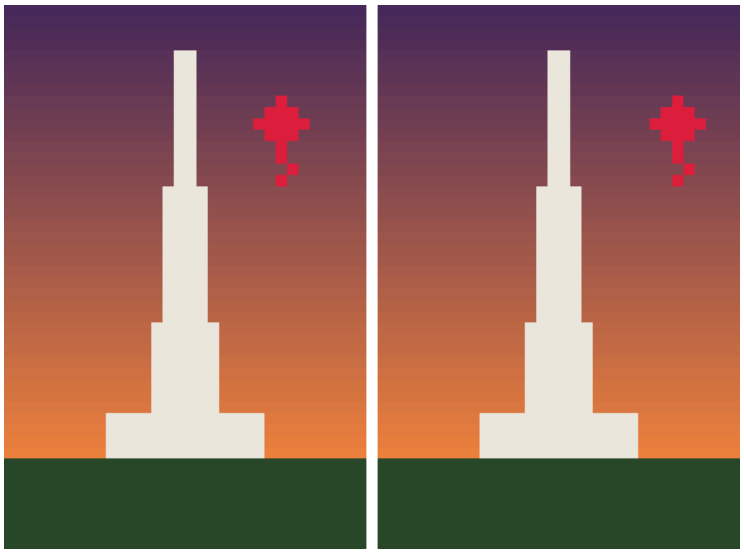


Figure 1.1: The two frames the script makes, side by side, enlarged eight times. Only the kite moves, two pixels to the right; shown alternately every 0.4 seconds, it seems to sway in the wind.

1.1 Choose the subject: one idea

Thinking: "Which Lahore landmark can I recognise from a single rule?" Badshahi Masjid needs domes, arches and symmetry; a street in the Walled City needs perspective. Minar-e-Pakistan is almost one idea: a white tower that gets narrower as it rises. Starting with the simplest recognisable shape is how most pixel artists begin; detail is added only once the silhouette reads.

1.2 Step 1: the canvas

Thinking: "How small can it be and still read as the Minar? A tower is tall and thin."

```
from PIL import Image
W, H = 32, 48
```

A small canvas forces decisions: at 32 pixels wide there is no room for detail that does not matter.

1.3 Step 2: the palette

Thinking: "Sunset over Iqbal Park. How few colours can I use?" Five: two for the sky, one for the tower, one for grass, one for the kite.

```
SKY_TOP, SKY_LOW, MINAR, GRASS, KITE = (70, 40, 90), (240, 130, 60), (235, 230, 220), (40, 70, 40),
    (220, 30, 60)
```

Each colour is three numbers from 0 to 255: how much red, green and blue light. There are two easy places to get colours:

- **From a photo.** Open your own photograph of the place in any image editor, or a web colour picker, click the sky, the stone and the grass, and copy the three numbers it shows.
- **From a palette library.** Pixel artists share ready-made palettes; the Lospec palette list (lospec.com/palette-list) has thousands, searchable by number of colours. Borrowing a tested palette is normal practice and a good way to learn which colours sit well together.

The physics behind the colours. Why is a sunset sky orange near the horizon and purple above? Sunlight contains every colour. Air molecules scatter short waves (blue) much more than long ones (red): this is *Rayleigh scattering*, and its strength rises as one over the wavelength to the fourth power, so blue light near 450 nm is scattered about four times as strongly as red light near 650 nm. At midday the light's path through the air is short, and the scattered blue fills the sky. At sunset the light crosses many times more air to reach you; most of the blue is scattered out of the beam on the way, and what arrives near the horizon is orange and red. Higher up the sky is lit by light that has crossed less air, hence the darker purple. Our two sky colours are that physics, chosen by eye.

1.4 Step 3: the sky as a blend

Thinking: "Fade from purple at the top to orange at the horizon. How far down a pixel is decides how much of each."

```
t = y / 40
c = tuple(int(a + (b - a) * t) for a, b in zip(SKY_TOP, SKY_LOW))
```

The number `t` is 0 at the top row and 1 at the horizon (row 40). For each of red, green and blue, the colour is the top value plus the fraction `t` of the way to the bottom value. This is *linear interpolation*, often called *lerp*, and it is the most reused idea in animation: blending colours, positions and sizes all work this way.

1.5 Step 4: the tower from one rule

Thinking: "It is a tower that narrows as it rises. If I give its half-width as a function of height, the shape draws itself."

```
half = (y - 4) / 12
if 4 <= y < 40 and abs(x - 15.5) <= half + 0.5:
    c = MINAR
if 36 <= y < 40 and abs(x - 15.5) <= 7:
    c = MINAR
```

The tower starts at row 4 and grows by one pixel on each side every twelve rows down. `abs(x - 15.5)` is the distance of a pixel from the centre line, so the test *distance from centre* $\leq$ *half-width* is the tower. The second test adds the wide platform the Minar stands on. Notice the tower comes out in steps, not a smooth slope: at this size, one more pixel of width is the smallest change possible. That staircase is part of the 8-bit look.

1.6 Step 5: the ground

Thinking: "Everything below the horizon is grass."

```
if y >= 40:
    c = GRASS
img.putpixel((x, y), c)
```

The order of the tests matters: later tests overwrite earlier ones, so the sky is the default, the tower is painted over it, and the ground over both. Painting from back to front like this is called the *painter's algorithm*.

1.7 Step 6: the kite as a sprite

Thinking: "A kite (patang) is a diamond with a tail. I will list its pixels once and stamp it wherever I want."

```
PATANG = ((0, -2), (-1, -1), (0, -1), (1, -1), (-2, 0), (-1, 0), (0, 0), (1, 0), (2, 0), (-1, 1), (0, 1)
    , (1, 1), (0, 2))
for dx, dy in PATANG + ((0, 3), (1, 4), (0, 5)):
    img.putpixel((kite_x + dx, 10 + dy), KITE)
```

A small shape stored as a list of offsets from its centre is a *sprite*. To draw it elsewhere, change `kite_x`. A first attempt with only five pixels looked like a cross, not a kite: at this size, a shape needs enough pixels for its silhouette to read, and testing by eye is part of the work.

1.8 Step 7: motion from two frames

Thinking: "Something only needs to swing to look alive. Two positions, shown in turn, are enough."

```
frames = [frame(24), frame(26)]
frames[0].save("../out/tiny_minar.gif", save_all=True, append_images=frames[1:], duration=400, loop=0)
```

The function `frame(kite_x)` draws the whole picture with the kite at a given column; the two frames differ only in that number. The GIF shows each for 400 milliseconds and loops for ever. *The physics behind the swing:* a kite on a string in a gusty wind sways like a pendulum about its resting point. Two frames are the crudest possible sample of that motion, and the eye fills in the rest. Chapter 5 computes the real motion from the forces.

1.9 Step 8: enlarge without blurring

Thinking: "At 32 by 48 it is a postage stamp. Make it bigger, but keep the pixels square."

```
return img.resize((W * 8, H * 8), Image.NEAREST)
```

`NEAREST` (nearest-neighbour resampling) copies each pixel into an 8 by 8 block. Smooth resampling would average neighbouring pixels and blur the edges, losing the pixel-art look.

1.10 What to try next

- Change `SKY_TOP` and `SKY_LOW` to midday blue and white, and see how the mood changes.
- Change 12 in the tower rule to 8 or 20, and watch the taper.
- Add a third frame, `frame(25)`, between the two, and the swing becomes smoother.
- Draw the Walled City's rooftops along the bottom: rectangles of random heights, one random number per house.

The rest of the guide takes each of these ideas (pixels, palettes, blending, shapes from rules, sprites, frames, physics) and builds them up properly, ending with Badshahi Masjid in a full day-and-night film.

2 Before you start

This guide builds a small animated picture of Badshahi Masjid, the great Mughal mosque of Lahore completed in 1673, without drawing anything by hand. Every pixel is computed. You start from a single coloured square and add one idea at a time: lines, filled shapes, a palette, a still picture made of reusable parts, then time, light, and finally physics, with a kite on an elastic string and a flock of pigeons. The same picture is then rebuilt in plain C, the way programs written with `graphics.h` in Dev-C++ drew, so you see what high-level libraries do for you underneath.

The style is deliberately *8-bit*: a 160 by 120 canvas and 16 colours, as on home computers of the 1980s. Small canvases make every idea visible, and the methods are the same ones used in modern games and scientific simulations.

2.1 What you will learn

- **Pictures:** a picture as a grid of numbers; palettes; Bresenham's line and the midpoint circle; filling shapes with inside tests; dithering.
- **Procedural modelling:** describing architecture with geometry (a Mughal arch as two overlapping discs, an onion dome as a width that varies with height) and building a scene from a list of parts, using symmetry.
- **Animation:** frames, the animation loop, everything as a function of time, a day-and-night cycle with a palette swap.
- **Simulation science:** forces, Newton's second law, numerical integration and why one form of Euler's method explodes while another is stable; springs, drag and gusty wind; flocking from three local rules.
- **Design:** drawing the program as a class diagram, a data-flow diagram, an entity–relationship diagram and a free-body diagram.
- **Low level:** a framebuffer in C, the old BGI drawing calls, and how OpenGL and game engines relate to them.

2.2 Getting Python and the notebook

Open the *Notebooks* page of this guide and choose *Open in Colab* to run it in a web browser with nothing to install. On your own computer:

```
conda create -n pixels python=3.12 numpy matplotlib pillow jupyterlab
conda activate pixels
jupyter lab
```

Then open the downloaded `pixel_animation.ipynb`. Boxes labelled *In [n]* are code and *Out [n]* what it printed or drew. Run the cells in order from the top: each section uses functions defined in the ones before. The animated GIFs are written to a `data` folder beside the notebook.

2.3 Setup

This notebook builds an 8-bit animation of Badshahi Masjid, Lahore, from nothing: first single pixels, then lines, shapes and a still picture, then time, motion and physics. Nothing is drawn by hand. Every part of the picture is computed from a few numbers, so it can be changed, repeated and animated.

Libraries: **numpy** holds the picture as an array of numbers and does arithmetic on all pixels at once; **matplotlib** shows pictures in the notebook; **Pillow** saves images and animated GIFs. All three come with Colab and Anaconda.

In [1]

```
import math
from dataclasses import dataclass, field
from pathlib import Path

import numpy as np
import matplotlib.pyplot as plt
from PIL import Image

OUT = Path("data")
OUT.mkdir(exist_ok=True)
plt.rcParams.update({"figure.dpi": 110})
print("numpy", np.__version__)
```

Out [1]

```
numpy 2.0.1
```

3 Still pictures

A still picture comes first: an animation is only many stills. This chapter goes from one pixel to the whole front of the mosque, and each step adds one idea.

3.1 A picture is a grid of numbers

A screen is a grid of small squares called **pixels**. Our canvas is 160 pixels wide and 120 high, about the size of a 1980s home computer screen. Position is given by a column **x** (0 at the left) and a row **y** (0 at the **top**: on screens y grows downwards, the opposite of a graph in maths).

Old machines did not store a colour for each pixel. They stored a small number, an index into a **palette** of 16 colours, so a pixel needed half a byte instead of three. We do the same: the canvas holds numbers 0 to 15, and the palette turns each into red, green and blue amounts (0 to 255 each). Changing one palette entry recolours every pixel that uses it at once, a trick we use later for night.

In [2]

```
W, H = 160, 120
GROUND = 104
PALETTE = [
    (16, 20, 43), (29, 43, 83), (94, 58, 110), (90, 150, 210),      # 0 night, 1 deep blue, 2 dusk, 3 day sky
    (170, 210, 235), (240, 140, 60), (255, 220, 110), (240, 236, 225),  # 4 pale sky, 5 orange, 6 sun, 7 marble
    (190, 185, 175), (170, 62, 45), (115, 38, 32), (40, 20, 22),    # 8 marble shade, 9 sandstone, 10 its shade, 11 door
    (70, 120, 60), (40, 75, 40), (200, 150, 110), (12, 10, 14),     # 12 lawn, 13 lawn shade, 14 path, 15 black
]
RGB = np.array(PALETTE, dtype=np.uint8)


def new_canvas(colour=0):
    return np.full((H, W), colour, dtype=np.uint8)

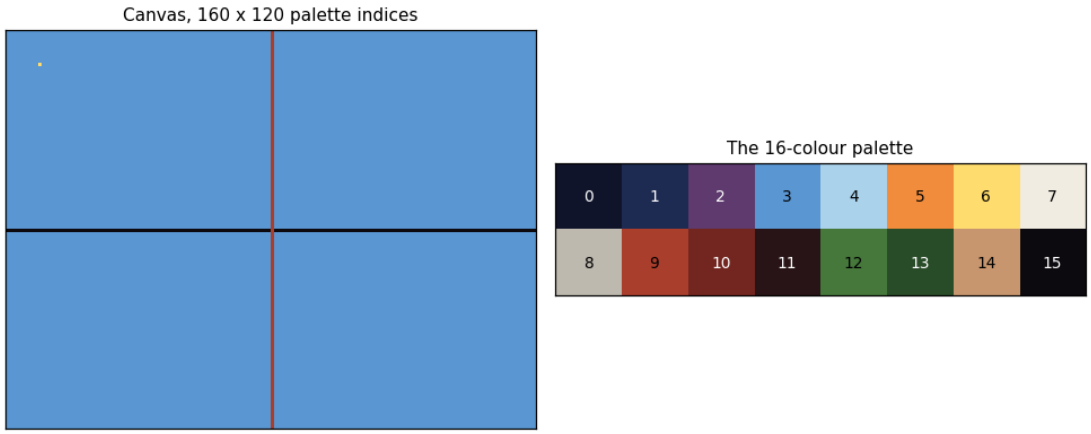

def put_pixel(c, x, y, col):
    """Set one pixel, ignoring positions off the canvas (a 'clipped' write)."""
    if 0 <= x < W and 0 <= y < H:
        c[int(y), int(x)] = col


def show(c, title=None, ax=None):
    ax = ax or plt.figure(figsize=(6, 4.5)).gca()
    ax.imshow(RGB[c], interpolation="nearest")          # RGB[c] looks every index up in the palette at once
    ax.set_xticks([]); ax.set_yticks([])
    if title:
        ax.set_title(title, fontsize=10)


c = new_canvas(3)
for x in range(W):
    put_pixel(c, x, 60, 15)          # a horizontal row of black pixels at y = 60
for y in range(H):
```

```
    put_pixel(c, 80, y, 9)          # a vertical column of red pixels at x = 80
put_pixel(c, 10, 10, 6)
fig, axes = plt.subplots(1, 2, figsize=(9, 3.6))
show(c, "Canvas, 160 x 120 palette indices", axes[0])
axes[1].imshow(RGB[np.arange(16).reshape(2, 8)], interpolation="nearest")
for i in range(16):
    axes[1].text(i % 8, i // 8, str(i), ha="center", va="center", fontsize=9, color="white" if i in (0,
     1, 2, 10, 11, 13, 15) else "black")
axes[1].set_xticks([]); axes[1].set_yticks([]); axes[1].set_title("The 16-colour palette", fontsize=10)
plt.tight_layout(); plt.show()
print("canvas shape (rows, columns):", c.shape, " bytes:", c.nbytes, " value at row 60, column 5:", c
     [60, 5])
```

Out [2]



Out [2]

```
canvas shape (rows, columns): (120, 160)  bytes: 19200  value at row 60, column 5: 15
```

The left panel is the canvas: one black row, one red column and a single yellow pixel near the top left, at x = 10, y = 10. The right panel shows the palette with each index printed on its colour. The printout confirms that the whole picture is 19,200 bytes (one byte per pixel; a real 8-bit machine would pack two pixels per byte) and that the pixel at row 60, column 5 holds 15, the index of black. Note that numpy indexes **row first**: `c[y, x]`.

3.2 Lines and circles from scratch

A line from (x0, y0) to (x1, y1) must be drawn as a staircase of whole pixels. The obvious way, computing y = y0 + slope × (x − x0) for each x, leaves gaps when the line is steep and needs fractions. **Bresenham's algorithm** (1965) uses only whole numbers: it walks one pixel at a time and keeps a running **error**, how far the true line has drifted from the pixel centre, and steps sideways whenever the error passes half a pixel. This is what `line()` in the old `graphics.h` library and every early games machine did.

A circle uses the same idea. The **midpoint circle algorithm** works out one eighth of the circle and copies each point to the other seven by symmetry: if (x, y) is on a circle about the centre, so are (y, x), (−x, y) and so on.

In [3]

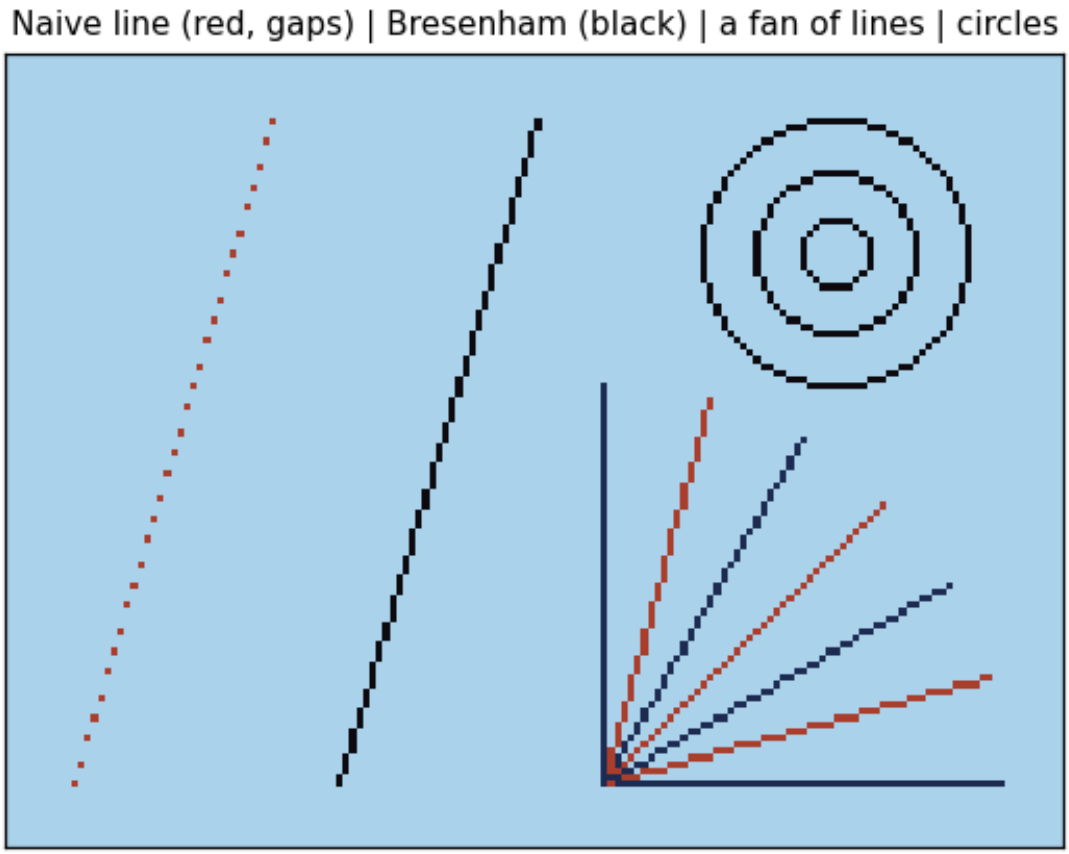
```
def line(c, x0, y0, x1, y1, col):
    x0, y0, x1, y1 = int(round(x0)), int(round(y0)), int(round(x1)), int(round(y1))
    dx, dy = abs(x1 - x0), -abs(y1 - y0)
    sx, sy = (1 if x0 < x1 else -1), (1 if y0 < y1 else -1)
    err = dx + dy                                   # error term, scaled to stay a whole number
    while True:
        put_pixel(c, x0, y0, col)
        if x0 == x1 and y0 == y1:
            return
        e2 = 2 * err
        if e2 >= dy:                                # the line has moved far enough to step in x
            err += dy; x0 += sx
        if e2 <= dx:                                # and/or in y
            err += dx; y0 += sy


def circle(c, cx, cy, r, col):
    x, y, err = r, 0, 1 - r
    while x >= y:
        for px, py in ((x, y), (y, x), (-y, x), (-x, y), (-x, -y), (-y, -x), (y, -x), (x, -y)):
            put_pixel(c, cx + px, cy + py, col)
        y += 1
        if err < 0:
            err += 2 * y + 1                         # midpoint inside the circle: keep x
        else:
            x -= 1; err += 2 * (y - x) + 1           # outside: step x inwards


def naive_line(c, x0, y0, x1, y1, col):
    for x in range(x0, x1 + 1):
        put_pixel(c, x, round(y0 + (y1 - y0) / (x1 - x0) * (x - x0)), col)


c = new_canvas(4)
naive_line(c, 10, 110, 40, 10, 9)                # steep: gaps appear
line(c, 50, 110, 80, 10, 15)                     # Bresenham: unbroken
for i, a in enumerate(np.linspace(0, math.pi / 2, 7)):
    line(c, 90, 110, 90 + 60 * math.cos(a), 110 - 60 * math.sin(a), 1 + i % 2 * 8)
for r in (5, 12, 20):
    circle(c, 125, 30, r, 15)
show(c, "Naive line (red, gaps) | Bresenham (black) | a fan of lines | circles")
plt.show()
lit = int((c == 9).sum())
print("pixels lit by the naive steep line:", (c[:, :45] == 9).sum(), "for a rise of 100 rows")
```

Out [3]



Out [3]

```
pixels lit by the naive steep line: 31 for a rise of 100 rows
```

The red line on the left was drawn the naive way. It is steep (100 rows for 30 columns), and the loop visits each column once, so it lights only 31 pixels for 100 rows and is full of gaps; the printout confirms the count. Bresenham's black line beside it steps in whichever direction the line moves faster and is unbroken. The fan shows lines at seven angles, all unbroken; the circles at the top right are drawn from one eighth of their outline each.

3.3 Shapes as inside tests

Outlines are not enough; a mosque is made of filled shapes. The easiest way to fill a shape is to ask, for every pixel, **is this pixel inside?** A shape then becomes a **mask**: an array of True and False the size of the canvas, and filling it is one line, `c[mask] = colour`. numpy computes the test for all 19,200 pixels at once from two arrays holding every pixel's column `X` and row `Y`.

- A **rectangle** is $x0 \le x < x1$ and $y0 \le y < y1$.
- A **disc** (filled circle) of radius r is $(x - cx)^2 + (y - cy)^2 \le r^2$.
- A **Mughal pointed arch** is the overlap of two discs. Put the centres a distance $k \cdot w/2$ either side of the arch's middle line, with radius $w/2 + k \cdot w/2$, so each circle passes through the far springing point (where the arch leaves its vertical sides). With $k = 0$ both centres coincide and

the arch is round; with $k = 1$ it is the steep 'equilateral' arch. Badshahi Masjid's arches are close to $k = 0.5$.

- An **onion dome** has a width that changes with height. Let u run from 0 at the base to 1 at the tip. The half width is $R(1 - u)^{0.7}\ (1 + 1.2u)$: the second factor swells the dome outwards, the first pulls it to a point, and the product is widest about a third of the way up. A third factor narrows the very bottom into a neck.

In [4]

```
Y, X = np.mgrid[0:H, 0:W]          # Y[row, col] = row, X[row, col] = col


def fill(c, mask, col):
    c[mask] = col


def rect(x0, y0, x1, y1):
    return (X >= x0) & (X < x1) & (Y >= y0) & (Y < y1)


def disc(cx, cy, r):
    return (X - cx) ** 2 + (Y - cy) ** 2 <= r * r

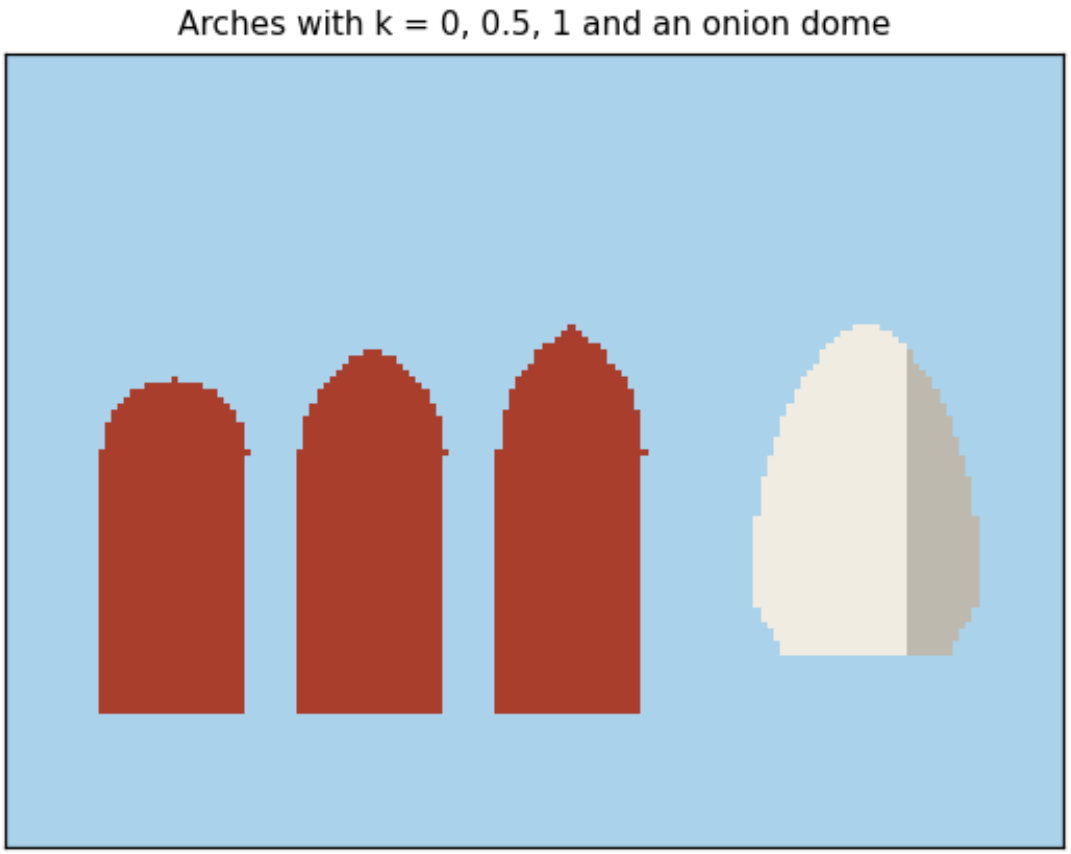

def pointed_arch(cx, spring, bottom, w, k=0.5):
    off = k * w / 2
    r = w / 2 + off
    top = disc(cx + off, spring, r) & disc(cx - off, spring, r) & (Y <= spring)
    return top | rect(cx - w / 2, spring, cx + w / 2, bottom)


def onion(cx, base, R, h):
    u = (base - Y) / h
    hw = R * np.clip(1 - u, 0, 1) ** 0.7 * (1 + 1.2 * u) * (0.8 + 0.2 * np.clip(u / 0.15, 0, 1))
    return (u >= 0) & (u <= 1) & (np.abs(X - cx + 0.5) <= hw)


c = new_canvas(4)
for i, k in enumerate((0.0, 0.5, 1.0)):
    fill(c, pointed_arch(25 + 30 * i, 60, 100, 22, k), 9)
fill(c, onion(130, 90, 16, 50), 7)
fill(c, onion(130, 90, 16, 50) & (X > 135), 8)
show(c, "Arches with k = 0, 0.5, 1 and an onion dome")
plt.show()

u = np.linspace(0, 1, 11)
hw = (1 - u) ** 0.7 * (1 + 1.2 * u) * (0.8 + 0.2 * np.clip(u / 0.15, 0, 1))
print("u      :", " ".join(f"{v:4.1f}" for v in u))
print("width/R:", " ".join(f"{v:4.2f}" for v in hw))
print("widest at u =", u[hw.argmax()], "where the dome is", round(hw.max(), 2), "times its base radius")
```

Out [4]



Out [4]

```
u      :  0.0  0.1  0.2  0.3  0.4  0.5  0.6  0.7  0.8  0.9  1.0
width/R: 0.80 0.97 1.06 1.06 1.04 0.98 0.91 0.79 0.64 0.42 0.00
widest at u = 0.2 where the dome is 1.06 times its base radius
```

The three red arches share one formula and differ only in k: round, Mughal and steeply pointed. The white dome is shaded on its right, where a second mask (the dome **and** x > 135) is filled with the shade colour: light comes from the left. The table gives the dome's half width as a multiple of R at eleven heights. It starts at 0.8 (the neck), peaks at 1.1 times R at u = 0.2 and falls to 0 at the tip, which is the onion shape. To change the dome, change the exponent or the 1.2 and run the cell again.

3.4 Dithering and the 8-bit look

A sky fades from deep blue overhead to pale at the horizon, but we have only 16 colours. **Ordered dithering** mixes two colours in a fixed pattern, so that from a distance the eye averages them. Each pixel gets a threshold from a 4 × 4 **Bayer matrix**, a table of the numbers 0 to 15 arranged so that neighbouring thresholds are far apart. Where the wanted mix (0 = all top colour, 1 = all bottom colour) exceeds the pixel's threshold, the pixel takes the bottom colour. Halfway down, half the pixels in every 4 × 4 block take each colour, in a checkerboard.

In [5]

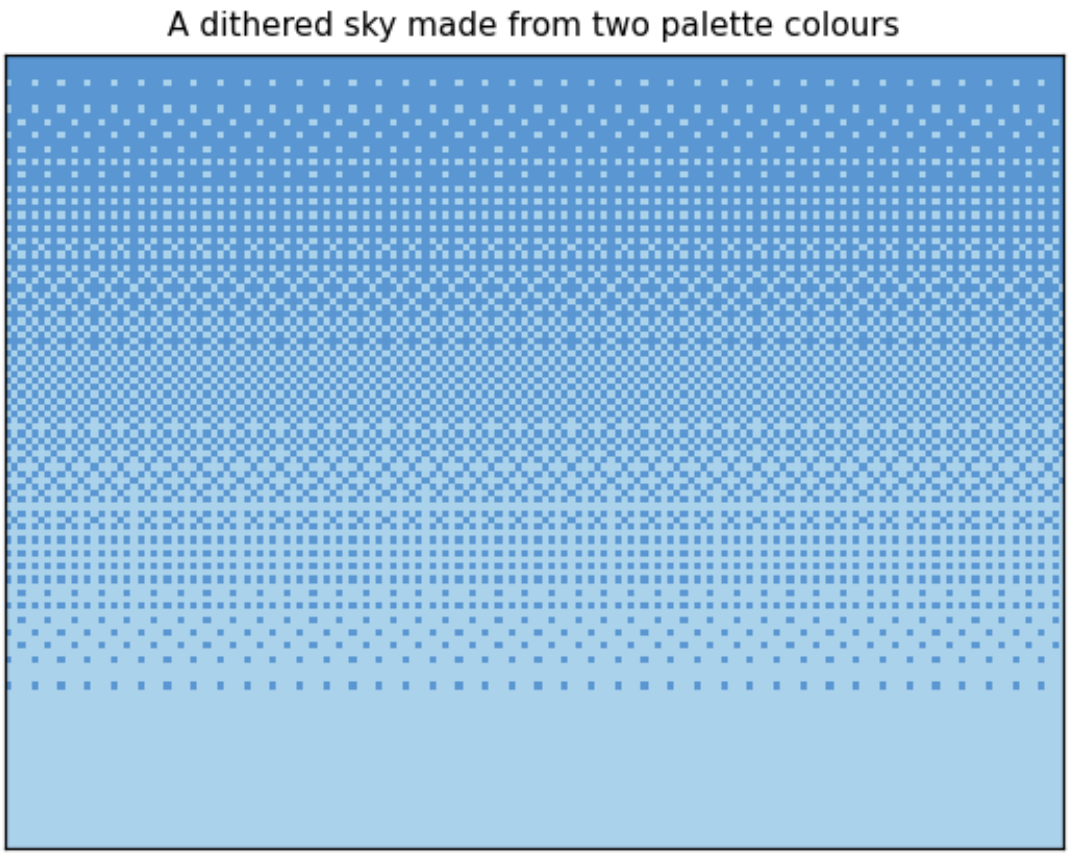
```
1 BAYER = np.array([[0, 8, 2, 10], [12, 4, 14, 6], [3, 11, 1, 9], [15, 7, 13, 5]]) / 16
```

```
2
3
4  def gradient(c, top, bottom, y_end=GROUND):
5      t = Y / y_end                                          # 0 at the top, 1 at y_end
6      c[:] = np.where(t > BAYER[Y % 4, X % 4], bottom, top)
7
8
9  c = new_canvas()
10 gradient(c, 3, 4)
11 print("Bayer thresholds (x 16):\n", (BAYER * 16).astype(int))
12 for row in (8, 52, 92):                                   # a band of 4 rows uses all 16 thresholds
       once
13     band = c[row:row + 4]
14     print(f"rows {row}-{row + 3}: share of pale pixels = {(band == 4).mean():.3f}  (wanted {(row + 1.5)
       / GROUND:.3f})")
15 show(c, "A dithered sky made from two palette colours"); plt.show()
```

Out [5]

```
Bayer thresholds (x 16):
 [[ 0  8  2 10]
 [12  4 14  6]
 [ 3 11  1  9]
 [15  7 13  5]]
rows 8-11: share of pale pixels = 0.125  (wanted 0.091)
rows 52-55: share of pale pixels = 0.500  (wanted 0.514)
rows 92-95: share of pale pixels = 0.938  (wanted 0.899)
```

Out [5]



The printout checks the method on bands of four rows, since a band of four rows meets each of the

16 thresholds once. Near the top (rows 8 to 11) 9 % of pixels should be pale and 12.5 % (2 of 16) are; in the middle (rows 52 to 55) half should be and exactly half are; near the horizon (rows 92 to 95) 90 % should be and 94 % (15 of 16) are. A 4 × 4 matrix can only make 17 levels, 0/16 to 16/16, so each band gets one of the levels nearest what was wanted. The picture shows the pattern: no new colour is used, yet the sky looks graded.

3.5 Components: a mosque from parts

Badshahi Masjid (1673) has a few kinds of parts, each repeated: **minarets** (towers with white bands, balconies and a small domed pavilion, a *chhatri*, on top), **domes** on round **drums**, **walls** of red sandstone with a row of merlons along the top, and **pointed arches** framed in white marble. We write each kind once as a **class**: a recipe holding a few numbers (position and size) and a `draw` method that turns them into pixels. A particular minaret is an **object**, one use of the recipe.

The building is symmetric about its centre line, so we describe only the left half and **mirror** each part: x becomes W − x. The whole building is then a list of objects, drawn back to front so that nearer parts cover farther ones (the 'painter's algorithm'). This list is data: you could save it as a table, edit it, or generate it.

In [6]

```
@dataclass
class Dome:
    cx: float; base: float; R: float; h: float; drum: float = 6

    def draw(self, c):
        fill(c, rect(self.cx - self.R * 0.8, self.base, self.cx + self.R * 0.8, self.base + self.drum),
     9)
        m = onion(self.cx, self.base, self.R, self.h)
        fill(c, m, 7)
        fill(c, m & (X > self.cx + self.R * 0.3), 8)
        top = self.base - self.h
        line(c, self.cx, top, self.cx, top - 5, 6)          # gilded finial: a spire with a ball
        fill(c, disc(self.cx, top - 2, 1.2), 6)


@dataclass
class Minaret:
    x: float; top: float; w: float = 6; bottom: float = GROUND - 8; balconies: tuple = (0.3, 0.6)

    def draw(self, c):
        x0, x1 = self.x - self.w / 2, self.x + self.w / 2
        fill(c, rect(x0, self.top, x1, self.bottom), 9)
        fill(c, rect(x1 - 2, self.top, x1, self.bottom), 10)
        for yy in range(int(self.top) + 3, int(self.bottom), 6):
            fill(c, rect(x0, yy, x1, yy + 1), 7)
        for f in self.balconies:
            yy = self.top + f * (self.bottom - self.top)
            fill(c, rect(x0 - 1, yy, x1 + 1, yy + 2), 8)
        fill(c, rect(x0 - 1, self.top - 1, x1 + 1, self.top + 1), 8)
        for px in (x0, x1 - 1):
            fill(c, rect(px, self.top - 5, px + 1, self.top - 1), 7)
        fill(c, onion(self.x, self.top - 5, self.w / 2 + 0.5, 5), 7)
        line(c, self.x, self.top - 11, self.x, self.top - 13, 6)


@dataclass
class Arch:
    cx: float; spring: float; bottom: float; w: float; frame: float = 2; k: float = 0.5; inner: int = 11
```

```
    def draw(self, c):
        fill(c, pointed_arch(self.cx, self.spring, self.bottom, self.w + 2 * self.frame, self.k), 7)
        fill(c, pointed_arch(self.cx, self.spring, self.bottom, self.w, self.k), self.inner)


@dataclass
class Block:
    x0: float; y0: float; x1: float; y1: float

    def draw(self, c):
        fill(c, rect(self.x0, self.y0, self.x1, self.y1), 9)
        fill(c, rect(self.x0, self.y0, self.x1, self.y0 + 1), 7)
        for xx in range(int(self.x0), int(self.x1), 3):
            fill(c, rect(xx, self.y0 - 2, xx + 2, self.y0), 9)


def mirror(comp):
    d = dict(comp.__dict__)
    key = "cx" if "cx" in d else "x" if "x" in d else None
    if key:
        d[key] = W - d[key]
    else:
        d["x0"], d["x1"] = W - d["x1"], W - d["x0"]
    return type(comp)(**d)


def badshahi():
    left = [Minaret(14, 24, 7, balconies=(0.25, 0.5, 0.75)), Dome(46, 52, 9, 16), Block(30, 60, 66,
     GROUND - 8),
            Minaret(30, 44, 4, balconies=(0.4,)), Arch(40, 76, GROUND - 8, 6), Arch(54, 76, GROUND - 8,
     6)]
    centre = [Dome(80, 38, 13, 22), Block(64, 42, 96, GROUND - 8),
              Arch(80, 62, GROUND - 8, 20, frame=3), Arch(80, 70, GROUND - 8, 10, frame=1, inner=10)]
    comps = []
    for comp in left:
        comps += [comp, mirror(comp)]
    return comps[:4] + centre[:1] + comps[4:] + centre[1:]


def ground(c):
    fill(c, rect(0, GROUND - 8, W, GROUND), 14)
    fill(c, rect(0, GROUND - 8, W, GROUND - 7), 7)
    fill(c, Y >= GROUND, 12)
    fill(c, (Y >= GROUND) & ((X - 80) ** 2 * 0.02 < (Y - GROUND + 2)), 14)


scene = badshahi()
for comp in scene[:6]:
    print(comp)
print("...", len(scene), "components in all")

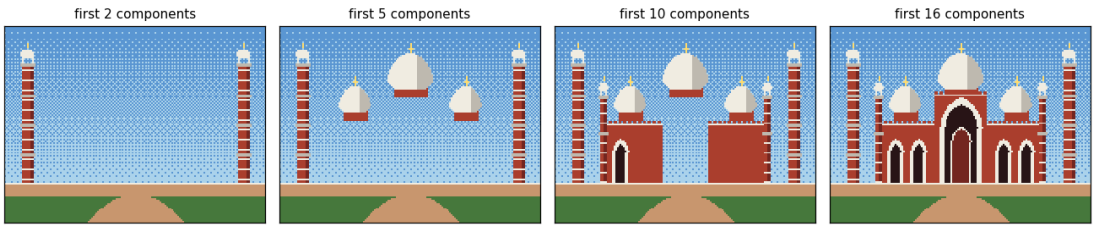
fig, axes = plt.subplots(1, 4, figsize=(12, 2.6))
c = new_canvas(); gradient(c, 3, 4); ground(c)
for i, n in enumerate((2, 5, 10, len(scene))):
    step = c.copy()
    for comp in scene[:n]:
        comp.draw(step)
    show(step, f"first {n} components", axes[i])
plt.tight_layout(); plt.show()
still = step
Image.fromarray(RGB[still]).resize((W * 4, H * 4), Image.NEAREST).save(OUT / "badshahi_still.png")
```

Out [6]

```
Minaret(x=14, top=24, w=7, bottom=96, balconies=(0.25, 0.5, 0.75))
```

```
Minaret(x=146, top=24, w=7, bottom=96, balconies=(0.25, 0.5, 0.75))
Dome(cx=46, base=52, R=9, h=16, drum=6)
Dome(cx=114, base=52, R=9, h=16, drum=6)
Dome(cx=80, base=38, R=13, h=22, drum=6)
Block(x0=30, y0=60, x1=66, y1=96)
... 16 components in all
```

Out [6]



The printout lists the first six objects: each is just a name and a few numbers, and mirrored pairs differ only in their x (14 and 146, 46 and 114). The four panels draw the list in order. After 2 components the two great minarets stand alone; after 5 the side domes and the central dome are up; after 10 the walls cover the bases of the domes, as the painter's algorithm intends; the last panel is the whole front, 16 components from 6 written by hand. The still is saved as `data/badshahi_still.png`, scaled up four times with **nearest-neighbour** resampling so the pixels stay sharp squares.

4 Time and motion

Motion is a picture that depends on time. Here the time is the hour of the day: the sun crosses the sky, the sky changes colour, and the building takes its night colours after sunset.

4.1 Time and frames

An animation is a sequence of still pictures, **frames**, shown quickly; at 20 frames a second the eye sees motion. A program makes them with a loop: for each frame, work out the time *t*, update everything that moves, draw the scene, and store the picture. Everything that changes is a **function of time**.

The sun moves on a circle of radius 84 centred below the ground. A day is one turn, *phase* 0 to 1: the angle is $a = 2\pi \times$ phase, the position is $(80 - 84\cos a, 104 - 84\sin a)$, and $\sin a$ is the sun's **elevation**: positive by day, negative by night. The sky's two colours are chosen from the elevation.

Night uses the palette trick: every colour of the building is swapped for its darker partner (sandstone 9 becomes shade 10, marble 7 becomes grey 8). This is a **palette swap**, as old games did to make night levels without drawing anything again.

In [7]

```
NIGHT = {9: 10, 7: 8, 12: 13, 14: 2, 8: 10, 10: 11}


def sun_position(phase):
    a = 2 * math.pi * phase
    return 80 - 84 * math.cos(a), GROUND - 84 * math.sin(a), math.sin(a)


def sky(c, elevation):
    if elevation > 0.25:   top, bottom = 3, 4      # day
    elif elevation > 0:    top, bottom = 2, 5      # sunrise and sunset glow
    elif elevation > -0.2: top, bottom = 0, 2      # twilight
    else:                  top, bottom = 0, 1      # night
    gradient(c, top, bottom)
    if elevation < 0:
        rng = np.random.default_rng(7)             # same seed, so the same stars every frame
        c[rng.integers(0, 60, 40), rng.integers(0, W, 40)] = 7


def render(phase, extras=()):
    c = new_canvas()
    sx, sy, elev = sun_position(phase)
    sky(c, elev)
    if elev > -0.05:
        fill(c, disc(sx, sy, 6), 6)
    else:
        mx, my, _ = sun_position(phase + 0.5)       # the moon is opposite the sun
        fill(c, disc(mx, my, 4), 7)
    ground(c)
    before = c.copy()
    for comp in badshahi():
        comp.draw(c)
    if elev < 0:
```

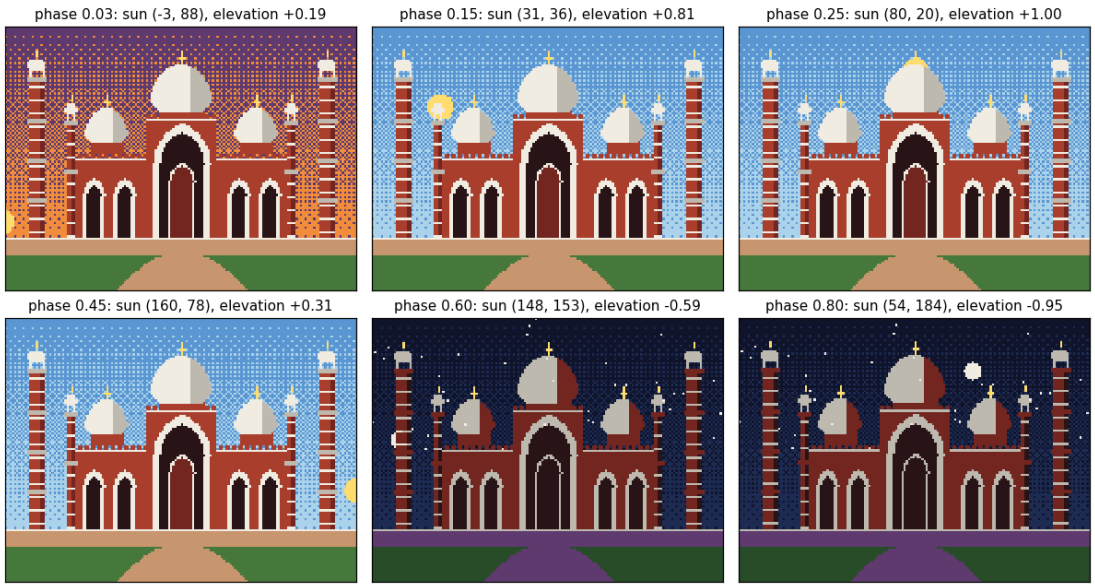
```
        covered = (c != before) | (Y >= GROUND - 8)
        old = c.copy()
        for a, b in NIGHT.items():
            c[covered & (old == a)] = b
    for e in extras:
        e(c)
    return c


phases = [0.03, 0.15, 0.25, 0.45, 0.6, 0.8]
fig, axes = plt.subplots(2, 3, figsize=(11, 6))
for ax, p in zip(axes.flat, phases):
    sx, sy, e = sun_position(p)
    show(render(p), f"phase {p:.2f}: sun ({sx:.0f}, {sy:.0f}), elevation {e:+.2f}", ax)
plt.tight_layout(); plt.show()


def save_gif(frames, path, fps=20):
    imgs = [Image.fromarray(RGB[f]).resize((W * 4, H * 4), Image.NEAREST) for f in frames]
    imgs[0].save(path, save_all=True, append_images=imgs[1:], duration=int(1000 / fps), loop=0)


save_gif([render(-0.05 + 1.1 * f / 120) for f in range(120)], OUT / "day_and_night.gif", fps=15)
print("saved", OUT / "day_and_night.gif")
```

Out [7]



Out [7]

```
saved data\day_and_night.gif
```

Each panel is the same scene at a different phase of the day; only the phase number changed. At phase 0.03 the sun has just risen at the left (elevation +0.19), so the sky has the sunrise glow. At 0.15 and 0.25 it is high and the sky is blue. At 0.45 it is setting on the right. At 0.6 and 0.8 the elevation is negative: the sky turns dark, stars appear, the moon is up, and the building has swapped to its night colours. The 120 frames are saved as an animated GIF in `data/`; open it to watch a whole day in eight seconds.

5 Physics and simulation

So far motion has been written as a formula of time. Real things move because forces act on them, and a simulation finds the motion step by step from the forces. Figure 5.1 shows the forces on the kite before any code: drawing a free-body diagram first is the habit that keeps a simulation honest.

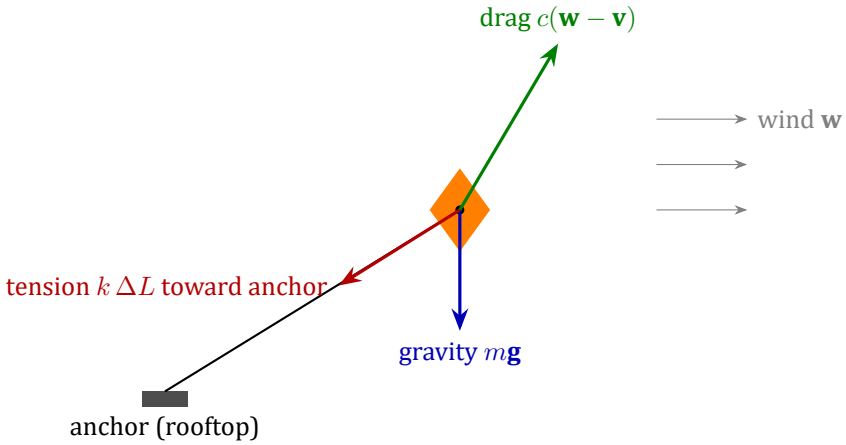


Figure 5.1: Free-body diagram of the kite. Three forces act on one point mass: gravity, the string's tension (only when stretched beyond its rest length L_0) and drag from the gusty wind. Newton's second law, $m\mathbf{a} = \sum \mathbf{F}$, gives the acceleration.

5.1 Forces and integration

Natural motion comes from **Newton's second law**: the acceleration of a body is the total **force** on it divided by its **mass**, $a = F/m$. A computer cannot solve this continuously, so it takes small time steps Δt and updates velocity and position in turn. This is **numerical integration**. The simplest rule, **explicit Euler**, moves the position with the old velocity:

$x \leftarrow x + v\,\Delta t$, $v \leftarrow v + a\,\Delta t$.

Semi-implicit (symplectic) Euler updates the velocity first and moves with the new velocity:

$v \leftarrow v + a\,\Delta t$, $x \leftarrow x + v\,\Delta t$.

The change looks trivial, but it matters. Test both on a spring, where the exact answer is known: a mass on a spring of stiffness k swings for ever with constant energy $\tfrac{1}{2}kx^2 + \tfrac{1}{2}mv^2$. A good method keeps that energy constant.

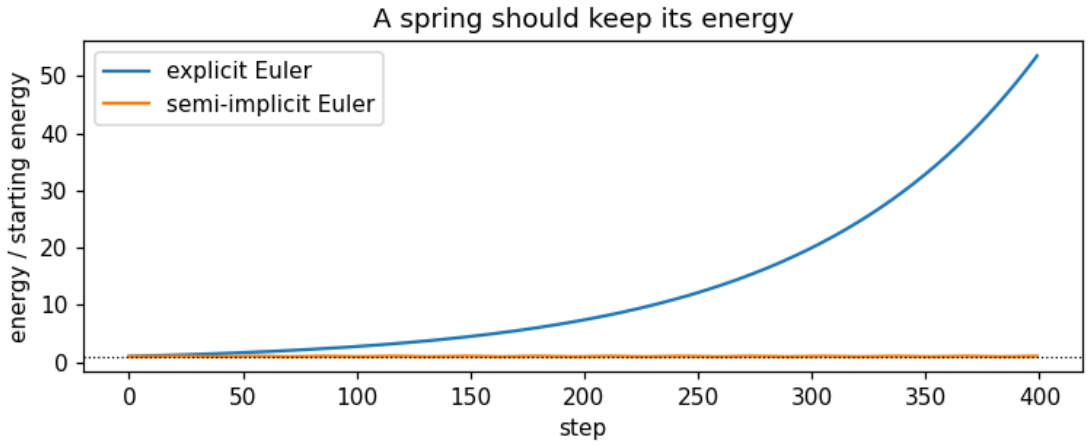
In [8]

```
def spring_energy(method, dt=0.05, steps=400, k=4.0, m=1.0):
    x, v = 1.0, 0.0
    E = []
    for _ in range(steps):
        a = -k * x / m
        if method == "explicit":
            x, v = x + v * dt, v + a * dt
        else:
            v = v + a * dt
```

```
            x = x + v * dt
        E.append(0.5 * k * x * x + 0.5 * m * v * v)
    return np.array(E)


E0 = 0.5 * 4.0 * 1.0 ** 2
ex, si = spring_energy("explicit"), spring_energy("semi")
plt.figure(figsize=(7, 3))
plt.plot(ex / E0, label="explicit Euler"); plt.plot(si / E0, label="semi-implicit Euler")
plt.axhline(1, color="k", lw=0.8, ls=":"); plt.xlabel("step"); plt.ylabel("energy / starting energy")
plt.legend(); plt.title("A spring should keep its energy"); plt.tight_layout(); plt.show()
print(f"after 400 steps (20 s): explicit {ex[-1] / E0:.2f} x start, semi-implicit {si[-1] / E0:.2f} x start "
      f"(range {si.min() / E0:.2f} to {si.max() / E0:.2f})")
```

Out [8]



Out [8]

```
after 400 steps (20 s): explicit 53.52 x start, semi-implicit 1.05 x start (range 0.95 to 1.05)
```

The dotted line is the truth: energy stays at 1. Explicit Euler (blue) gains energy every step and has grown about fifty-fold after 20 seconds, so a spring drawn with it would fling itself off the screen. Semi-implicit Euler (orange) wobbles a little around 1 but never drifts, so it can run for ever. We use it for everything that moves.

The kite. Basant, the spring kite festival, filled Lahore's sky with kites. Ours is a point mass held by a string from a rooftop at the lower left. Three forces act on it (drawn in the free-body diagram in the guide):

1. **Gravity**, $m\,g$, straight down.
2. **String tension** from **Hooke's law**: if the string is stretched beyond its rest length L_0 by ΔL, it pulls towards the anchor with force $k\,\Delta L$. A string can pull but not push, so the force is zero when slack.
3. **Wind**, modelled as **drag**: a force proportional to the difference between the wind velocity and the kite's velocity, $c(\mathbf{w} - \mathbf{v})$. The wind blows right and lifts upwards, and it gusts: each component is a constant plus a few sine waves of different periods, so it never quite repeats.

Units are pixels and seconds; g = 20 pixels per second squared is chosen so the motion reads well, not to match the real value of 9.8 m s^{-2}.

In [9]

```
@dataclass
class Kite:
    anchor: tuple = (4.0, GROUND - 2.0)
    pos: np.ndarray = field(default_factory=lambda: np.array([40.0, 40.0]))
    vel: np.ndarray = field(default_factory=lambda: np.zeros(2))
    m: float = 1.0; g: float = 20.0; k: float = 6.0; L0: float = 90.0; drag: float = 1.5

    def wind(self, t):
        return np.array([10 + 4 * math.sin(0.7 * t) + 2 * math.sin(2.3 * t), -30 - 3 * math.sin(1.3 * t)
    ])

    def forces(self, t):
        d = self.pos - np.array(self.anchor)
        L = np.linalg.norm(d)
        tension = -self.k * max(L - self.L0, 0) * d / L
        gravity = np.array([0.0, self.m * self.g])
        air = self.drag * (self.wind(t) - self.vel)
        return gravity, tension, air

    def step(self, t, dt):
        self.vel += sum(self.forces(t)) / self.m * dt
        self.pos += self.vel * dt

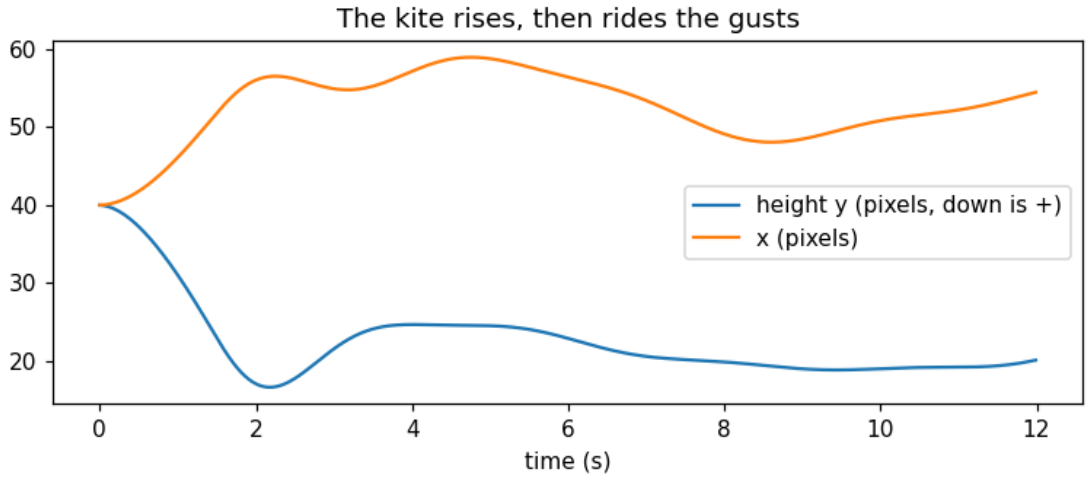
    def draw(self, c):
        line(c, *self.anchor, *self.pos, 15)
        x, y = self.pos
        diamond = (np.abs(X - x) / 3 + np.abs(Y - y) / 4) <= 1
        fill(c, diamond, 5); fill(c, diamond & (X > x), 6)
        for i in range(1, 6):
            put_pixel(c, x - 1 - i * 0.4, y + 3 + i + math.sin(i + x) * 0.8, 9)


kite, dt, track = Kite(), 1 / 80, []
for n in range(80 * 12):                              # 12 seconds in steps of 1/80 s
    kite.step(n * dt, dt)
    track.append(kite.pos.copy())
track = np.array(track)
g, T, A = kite.forces(12.0)
print("position after 12 s:", track[-1].round(1), " string length:", round(float(np.linalg.norm(track
    [-1] - kite.anchor)), 1))
print("forces now  gravity:", g.round(1), " tension:", T.round(1), " wind:", A.round(1), " total:", (g +
     T + A).round(1))
fig, ax = plt.subplots(figsize=(7, 3.2))
ax.plot(np.arange(len(track)) * dt, track[:, 1], label="height y (pixels, down is +)")
ax.plot(np.arange(len(track)) * dt, track[:, 0], label="x (pixels)")
ax.set_xlabel("time (s)"); ax.legend(); ax.set_title("The kite rises, then rides the gusts"); plt.
    tight_layout(); plt.show()
```

Out [9]

```
position after 12 s: [54.5 20.1]  string length: 96.2
forces now  gravity: [ 0. 20.]  tension: [-19.4  31.5]  wind: [ 18.3 -48.8]  total: [-1.2  2.8]
```

Out [9]



The kite starts at (40, 40) with no speed. In the first few seconds the wind lifts it (y falls, as y counts downwards) and pushes it right until the string goes taut; from then it hovers near the end of its string, swaying as the gusts rise and fall. The printout checks the physics at 12 seconds: the string is a little longer than its rest length of 90, so it is stretched and pulling; the tension points back towards the anchor (down and left, negative x and positive y); and the three forces nearly cancel, so the total is small. A kite at rest on a taut string is exactly a balance of these three forces.

5.2 A flock of pigeons

The pigeons of the Badshahi courtyard wheel together. Craig Reynolds (1987) showed that a flock needs no leader: each bird follows three local rules about the neighbours it can see (here, those within 25 pixels).

1. **Separation**: steer away from birds that are too close (closer than 5 pixels), more strongly the closer they are.
2. **Alignment**: steer towards the average heading of neighbours.
3. **Cohesion**: steer towards the average position of neighbours.

We add a fourth, a gentle pull towards a point above the mosque, so the flock stays on screen, and keep each bird's speed between 8 and 22 pixels a second. With numpy all birds are updated at once: `d[i, j]` is the vector from bird *j* to bird *i*, and summing over *j* adds up the effect of all neighbours.

In [10]

```
@dataclass
class Flock:
    n: int = 14; seed: int = 3

    def __post_init__(self):
        rng = np.random.default_rng(self.seed)
        self.p = rng.uniform([20, 10], [140, 40], (self.n, 2))
        self.v = rng.normal(0, 8, (self.n, 2)) + [12, 0]

    def step(self, dt):
        d = self.p[:, None, :] - self.p[None, :, :]
```

```
        dist = np.linalg.norm(d, axis=2) + np.eye(self.n) * 1e9     # a bird is not its own neighbour
        near = dist < 25
        cnt = near.sum(1, keepdims=True).clip(1)
        cohesion = (near[..., None] * -d).sum(1) / cnt * 0.6
        alignment = ((near @ self.v) / cnt - self.v) * 0.5
        separation = ((dist < 5)[..., None] * d / dist[..., None] ** 2).sum(1) * 60
        home = (np.array([80, 25]) - self.p) * 0.4
        self.v += (cohesion + alignment + separation + home) * dt
        speed = np.linalg.norm(self.v, axis=1, keepdims=True)
        self.v *= np.clip(speed, 8, 22) / speed
        self.p += self.v * dt

    def spread(self):
        d = np.linalg.norm(self.p[:, None] - self.p[None], axis=2)
        return d[np.triu_indices(self.n, 1)].mean()

    def heading_agreement(self):
        u = self.v / np.linalg.norm(self.v, axis=1, keepdims=True)
        return float(np.linalg.norm(u.mean(0)))           # 1 = all fly the same way, 0 = random

    def draw(self, c, frame=0):
        for i, (x, y) in enumerate(self.p):
            dy = -1 if (frame + i) % 4 < 2 else 1           # a two-frame wing flap
            put_pixel(c, x, y, 15); put_pixel(c, x - 1, y + dy, 15); put_pixel(c, x + 1, y + dy, 15)


flock = Flock()
print(f"start: mean distance between birds {flock.spread():5.1f} px, heading agreement {flock.
    heading_agreement():.2f}")
for s in range(1, 201):
    flock.step(1 / 20)
    if s in (40, 200):
        print(f"{s / 20:4.0f} s: mean distance between birds {flock.spread():5.1f} px, heading agreement
     {flock.heading_agreement():.2f}")
inside = ((flock.p >= 0) & (flock.p < [W, H])).all(1)
print(f"birds inside the canvas: {inside.sum()} of {flock.n}; flock centre at {flock.p.mean(0).round(0)}
    ")
```

Out [10]

```
start: mean distance between birds  43.1 px, heading agreement 0.73
   2 s: mean distance between birds  20.0 px, heading agreement 0.31
  10 s: mean distance between birds  13.5 px, heading agreement 0.54
birds inside the canvas: 12 of 14; flock centre at [63.  7.]
```

The numbers show a flock forming. At the start the birds are scattered across the sky (43 pixels apart on average) and fairly aligned (0.73), because they were all given a push to the right. Within two seconds they have drawn together (20 pixels apart), and after ten they are packed within about 14 pixels of each other. Heading agreement first falls to 0.31 and then recovers to about a half: the pull towards the mosque turns the flock round, and birds on the inside of a turn point a different way from those outside, so the flock **wheels** over the dome, as courtyard pigeons do, rather than flying off in a line. The flock centre sits near (63, 7), above the central dome; two birds at the top edge are briefly off the canvas (12 of 14 inside), which is harmless because `put_pixel` ignores them. No rule mentions 'the flock': it emerges from each bird watching its neighbours, which is why this is called **emergent behaviour**.

5.3 Putting it together: the film

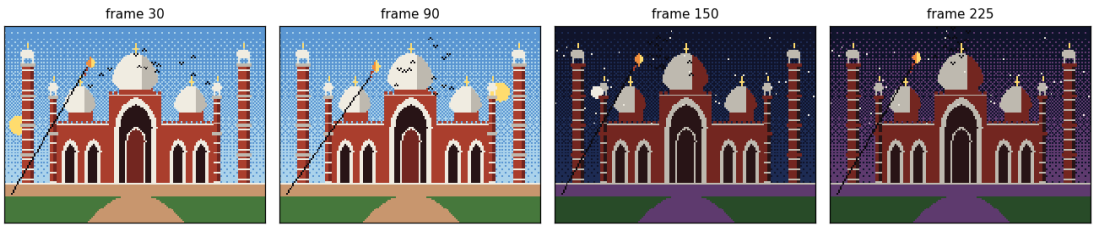
The film loop now has three clocks running together: the **phase** of the day, the **physics time** of the kite and birds, and the **frame number** for the wing flap. The kite takes four small physics steps per frame (sub-stepping) because springs need short steps to stay stable; the birds take one.

In [11]

```
def film(n=240, fps=20, substeps=4):
    kite, flock, frames = Kite(), Flock(), []
    dt = 1 / fps
    for f in range(n):
        for s in range(substeps):
            kite.step(f * dt + s * dt / substeps, dt / substeps)
        flock.step(dt)
        frames.append(render(-0.05 + 1.1 * f / n, extras=(lambda c, f=f: flock.draw(c, f), kite.draw)))
    return frames


frames = film()
save_gif(frames, OUT / "badshahi_film.gif")
fig, axes = plt.subplots(1, 4, figsize=(12, 2.6))
for ax, i in zip(axes, (30, 90, 150, 225)):
    show(frames[i], f"frame {i}", ax)
plt.tight_layout(); plt.show()
print(len(frames), "frames saved to", OUT / "badshahi_film.gif", f"({(OUT / 'badshahi_film.gif').stat().
    st_size / 1e6:.1f} MB)")
```

Out [11]



Out [11]

```
240 frames saved to data\badshahi_film.gif (0.4 MB)
```

Four frames from the twelve-second film. In frame 30 it is morning (phase 0.09): the sun is low on the left, the flock wheels over the central dome and the kite flies to the left on its taut string. In frame 90 (phase 0.36) the sun is high in the west, on the right. Frame 150 (phase 0.64) is deep night: the building has its night colours, the moon has risen and the birds, drawn in black, all but vanish against the sky, as real birds do. Frame 225 (phase 0.98) is the twilight before dawn, with the purple glow low in the sky; the kite still rides the wind. The whole film comes from about 250 lines of code and no drawn images.

5.4 What you have learned

- A picture is an array of palette indices; a palette turns them into colours, and swapping palette entries recolours a scene at once.

- Lines and circles are drawn with whole-number algorithms (Bresenham, midpoint); filled shapes are inside tests.
- Architecture can be written as geometry: a Mughal arch is two overlapping discs, an onion dome a width that varies with height.
- Dithering imitates more colours than the palette has.
- A scene is a list of components, each a class with a few numbers and a draw method; symmetry halves the work.
- Animation is drawing the scene as a function of time, many times a second.
- Motion comes from forces and integration; semi-implicit Euler keeps energy where explicit Euler explodes.
- Complex group behaviour can emerge from a few local rules.

The guide's later chapters draw the design as diagrams, rebuild the same picture in C as old `graphics.h` programs did, and turn the film into a game you control.

6 The design as diagrams

The program is small, but it already has the shape of larger ones: data describing a scene, components that draw themselves, simulations that advance in time, and a loop that ties them together. Diagrams make that shape visible before the code grows. Each kind answers a different question.

6.1 Class diagram: what the parts are

A UML *class diagram* shows each kind of object, the numbers it holds (attributes) and what it can do (methods). Figure 6.1 shows the program's classes. The four building components share one method, `draw(canvas)`, so the scene can draw any of them without knowing which it is; this is what programmers call an *interface*. The kite and the flock add `step(dt)`, which advances the simulation by a time step.

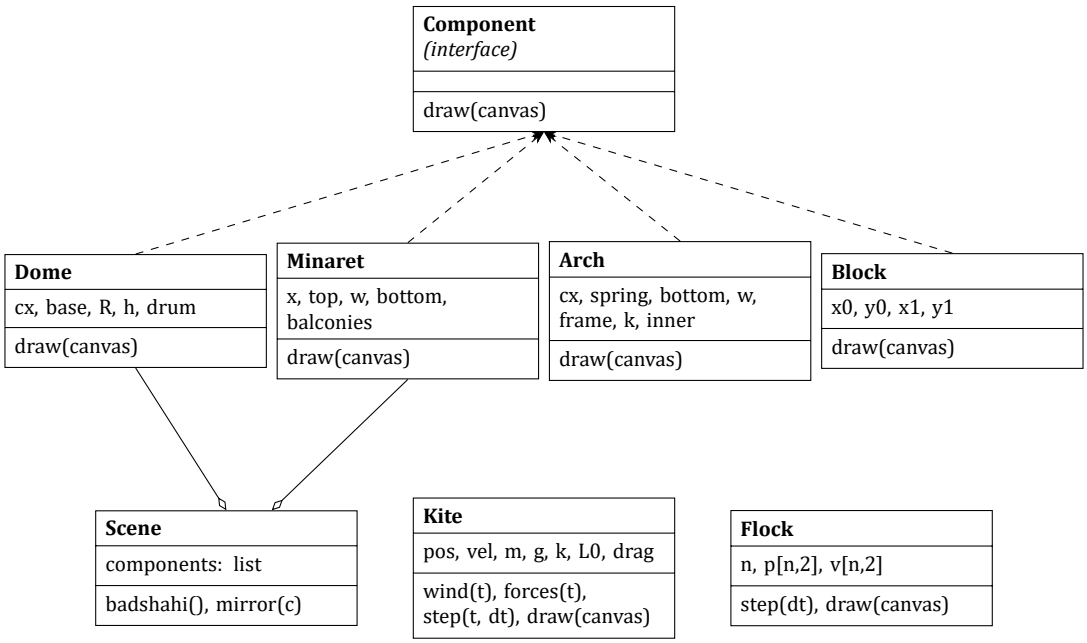


Figure 6.1: Class diagram. Dashed arrows: each building part implements the Component interface. Open diamonds: the scene is an aggregation of components (Arch and Block are aggregated in the same way; their lines are omitted for clarity).

6.2 Data-flow diagram: how data moves

A *data-flow diagram* (DFD) ignores classes and follows the data: where it comes from, which processes transform it, and where it is stored. Figure 6.2 shows one frame. Parameters (the scene list, palette, constants) are stored data; the clock supplies time; processes turn them into a grid of indices and finally into an image file.

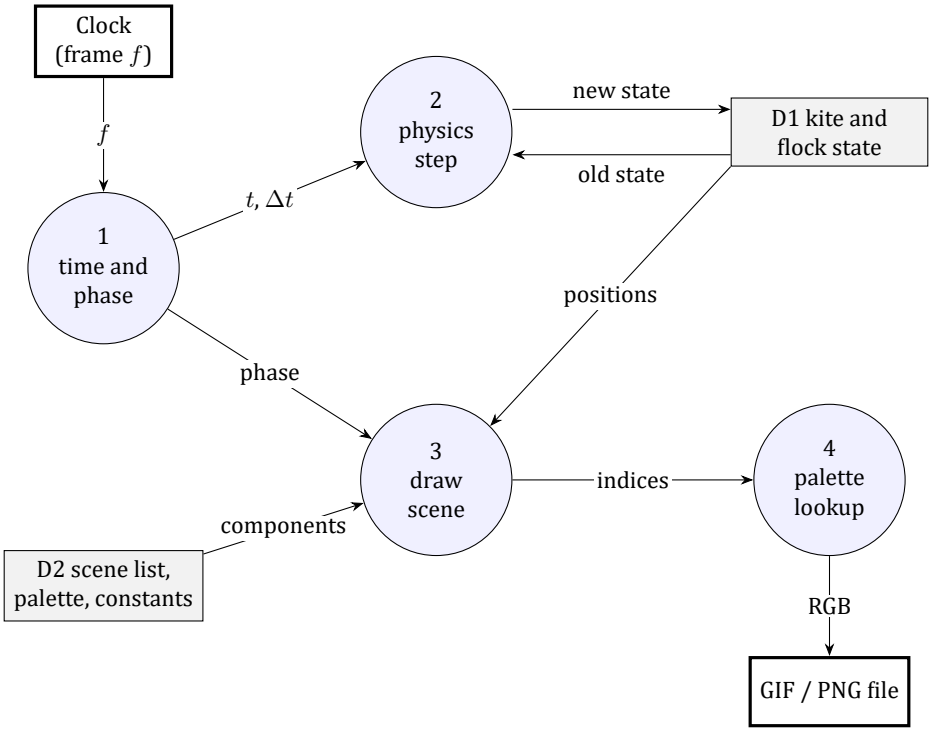


Figure 6.2: Level-1 data-flow diagram for one frame. Circles are processes, open boxes are stores, bold boxes are external entities.

6.3 Entity–relationship diagram: the scene as data

Because the scene is a list of parts, it could live in a table or database instead of code: change a row and the mosque changes. An *entity–relationship diagram* (ERD) designs those tables. Figure 6.3 shows one design: a landmark has many components; each component has a type and its own numbers; a component may be the mirror of another. Adding Government College's tower or the Lahore Museum would mean new rows and perhaps a new component type, not new drawing code for the scene.

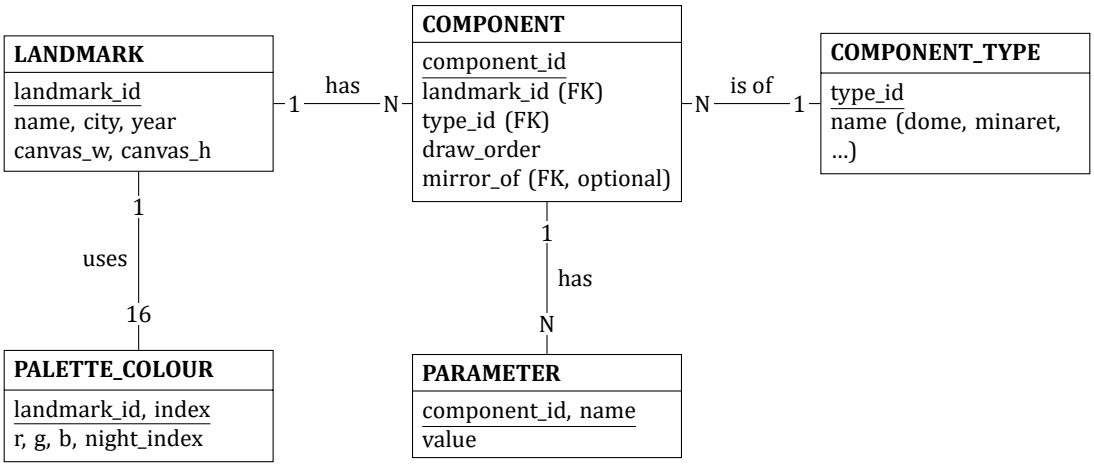


Figure 6.3: Entity–relationship diagram for storing landmarks as data. Underlined fields are keys; FK marks a foreign key, a reference to a row in another table. The optional field mirror_of links a component to the one it mirrors, in the same table.

6.4 Which diagram when

Diagram	Question it answers here
Free-body (Figure 5.1)	Which forces act on a body, and in which directions? Draw before writing `forces()`.
Class (Figure 6.1)	What kinds of object exist, what they hold and what they can do?
Data flow (Figure 6.2)	Where does each piece of data come from and go to in one frame?
Entity–relationship (Figure 6.3)	How would the scene be stored as tables so it can be edited without code?

7 The low level: the same picture in C

The Python version leans on numpy to test all 19,200 pixels at once and on Pillow to write image files. Underneath, every graphics system does what this chapter does by hand: it keeps the picture in a block of memory, the *framebuffer*, and writes bytes into it. The C program `pixel_lahore.c` in the guide's `c` folder draws the same mosque, sun and kite with nothing but the C standard library.

7.1 A framebuffer and BGI-style calls

Students who used Dev-C++ with `graphics.h` (the Borland Graphics Interface, BGI) will recognise the calls. The program defines its own versions, so it compiles anywhere:

```c
static unsigned char fb[H][W];   /* the framebuffer: one palette index per pixel */
static int colour = 15;          /* the current colour, as setcolor() sets it */

void setcolor(int c) { colour = c; }
void putpixel(int x, int y, int c) {
    if (x >= 0 && x < W && y >= 0 && y < H) fb[y][x] = (unsigned char)c;
}
```

Every other drawing call is built on `putpixel`. The line and circle are the Bresenham and midpoint algorithms of Chapter 3, now in integers only:

```c
void line(int x0, int y0, int x1, int y1) {
    int dx = abs(x1 - x0), dy = -abs(y1 - y0);
    int sx = x0 < x1 ? 1 : -1, sy = y0 < y1 ? 1 : -1, err = dx + dy;
    for (;;) {
        putpixel(x0, y0, colour);
        if (x0 == x1 && y0 == y1) return;
        int e2 = 2 * err;
        if (e2 >= dy) { err += dy; x0 += sx; }
        if (e2 <= dx) { err += dx; y0 += sy; }
    }
}
```

The shapes are the same inside tests, written as two nested loops over rows and columns instead of numpy masks. The pointed arch, for example:

```c
static int in_arch(double x, double y, double cx, double spring, double bottom, double w) {
    double off = 0.25 * w, r = w / 2 + off;          /* two centres, k = 0.5 */
    if (y >= spring) return fabs(x + 0.5 - cx) <= w / 2 && y < bottom;
    double a = (x - cx - off) * (x - cx - off) + (y - spring) * (y - spring);
    double b = (x - cx + off) * (x - cx + off) + (y - spring) * (y - spring);
    return a <= r * r && b <= r * r;
}
```

Symmetry becomes a loop over the two sides, with $x \mapsto W - x$ on the second pass, and the kite is a `struct` of position and velocity updated by the same semi-implicit Euler step.

7.2 Writing an image without a library

The simplest image format is PPM: a text header giving the width, height and maximum value, then three bytes (red, green, blue) per pixel. Writing it is a palette lookup per pixel:

```
void save_ppm(const char *path) {
    FILE *f = fopen(path, "wb");
    fprintf(f, "P6\n%d %d\n255\n", W, H);
    for (int y = 0; y < H; y++)
        for (int x = 0; x < W; x++) fwrite(PALETTE[fb[y][x]], 1, 3, f);
    fclose(f);
}
```

7.3 Compile and run

With any C compiler (Dev-C++ and Code::Blocks include MinGW's `gcc`; on Linux and macOS it is usually installed):

```
gcc -O2 -Wall -o pixel_lahore pixel_lahore.c -lm
./pixel_lahore
```

It writes `still.ppm` and 120 frames, `frames/frame_000.ppm` to `frame_119.ppm`, and prints where the kite ended. Compiled with `gcc` on Windows, it gave no warnings and printed

```
wrote still.ppm and 120 frames; kite ended at (54.5, 20.1)
```

which is the same final kite position as the Python notebook's after twelve seconds, because both integrate the same equations with the same step of $1/80$ s. Any image viewer that reads PPM (GIMP, IrfanView) opens the frames, and Pillow or the free tool ImageMagick (`magick frames/*.ppm film.gif`) joins them into a GIF.



Figure 7.1: The still written by the C program, enlarged four times. It matches the Python picture except along some edges: compared pixel by pixel, 531 of the 19,200 pixels (2.8 %) differ, all on the outlines of round shapes, where C rounds coordinates to whole numbers at different points from numpy.

7.4 Where OpenGL and game engines fit

`graphics.h` and this program draw on the processor, one pixel at a time. OpenGL, Direct3D, Vulkan and Metal hand the work to the graphics card, which runs a small program, a *shader*, for every pixel in parallel. The ideas map across directly:

This guide	`graphics.h`	OpenGL	Note
`fb` array	screen memory	framebuffer	where the picture lives
`put_pixel`	`putpixel`	`GL_POINTS`	one pixel at a time is slow on a GPU
`line`	`line`	`GL_LINES`	rasterised by the card
inside-test mask	`fillpoly`	fragment shader	a fragment shader *is* an inside test run for every pixel
palette lookup	`setpalette`	texture lookup	a 16-entry texture
frame loop	`cleardevice`, `delay`	swap buffers	draw to a hidden buffer, then show it

The pointed-arch test, written in OpenGL's shading language, would be the same few lines run by the card for every pixel at once. That is why a modern game can draw millions of pixels sixty times a second, while the methods are those you have just written by hand.

8 Towards a game

An animation plays by itself; a game listens. The step from one to the other is small, and the next parts of this project take it one piece at a time, each from first principles.

8.1 The game loop

The film loop of Chapter 5 becomes a *game loop* with three steps repeated for ever: read the player's input, update the world, draw. Physics must not depend on how fast the computer draws, so games use a *fixed time step*: they add the real time that has passed to an accumulator, run as many physics steps of, say, $1/120$ s as fit, then draw once.

```
acc, dt = 0.0, 1 / 120
while running:
    acc += time_since_last_frame()
    handle_input()
    while acc >= dt:
        world.step(dt)
        acc -= dt
    draw(world)
```

8.2 Plan for the next parts

1. **Input:** steer the kite from the keyboard by letting out or pulling in string (changing L_0), with `pygame` for the window and keys.
2. **State and rules:** a *pech*, the Basant kite fight: a second kite flown by the computer, and a rule for when one string cuts the other (the intersection of two line segments).
3. **Collision:** pigeons that avoid the kite (a fourth flocking rule) and kites that cannot pass through minarets (the inside tests you already have).
4. **Sprites and tiles:** small images reused many times, and a scrolling view of the Walled City: the Shahi Qila opposite the mosque and the Hazuri Bagh between them.
5. **More landmarks as data:** Government College's tower, the National College of Arts and the Lahore Museum as new rows in the tables of Figure 6.3.
6. **Sound:** tones generated as waveforms, for the cry of *bo kata!* when a kite is cut.

Each part follows the pattern of this guide: the idea in words, the smallest code that shows it, a check that the result is what the physics or geometry says it should be, and then its place in the growing program.